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INDIGENOUS SCHOOLS IN INDIA

In the indigenous vernacular schools, ‘parents of good caste do not hesitate to send their children to schools conducted by teachers of an inferior caste and even of a different religion. . . . this is true of the Chandal, and other low caste teachers enumerated.’

– William Adam¹

The Hindoos and Mahomedans, as well as the different castes of the Hindoos, a few of the lowest excepted, mix together for the purpose of education without the slightest reluctance or inconvenience.

– Mountstuart Elphinstone²

By the beginning of the nineteenth century, India had a diverse and thriving indigenous system of education, which comprised both sacred and secular. The Sanskrit schools taught literature and sacred texts in most cases exclusively to Brahmin boys, and the Madrasas taught Arabic language and Islamic literature to Muslim boys. The Persian schools taught Persian literature, and the vernacular schools taught Indian vernaculars, such as Kannada, Tamil, Bengali, Marathi, and so on, along with arithmetic, to boys of all castes and religions. All these schools were single-teacher schools. Alexander Johnstone (1775–1849), one of the founders of the Royal Asiatic Society of Great Britain and Ireland, has left behind a very elaborate account of the education system in south India during the latter part of the eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries. Johnstone was born in Scotland and was taken to Madras at an early age. He spent his childhood studying Tamil, Telugu, and Hindustani alongside native boys. He was sent to Britain in 1792 for higher education. During 1802–1819, Johnstone served in various positions, including the Chief Justice of Ceylon. He fought for the abolition of slavery in Ceylon. Johnstone has recorded the details of the *upanayana* ceremony performed by Hindu parents of all castes before initiating their sons into formal learning in peninsular India.³ Johnstone argued

that ‘every Hindu parent looked upon the education of his child as a sacred duty’ and that all men irrespective of caste had access to education. He urged the British government to establish schools in every village ‘to render them properly qualified for expecting the highest office under the British government.’⁴

A comparative analysis of indigenous education across India can be made by using a combination of early reports. In 1813, the British parliament earmarked 100,000 rupees for promoting education in India. The colonial state did not utilise the sum until 1821 under the pretext that the natives would not submit to the subordination and discipline of educational institutions. Such notions were challenged by Thomas Munro, the governor of the Madras Presidency; Francis Warden in the Bombay Presidency; and William Adam in the Bengal Presidency. They collected the data of the indigenous schools to urge the colonial state to spend resources to strengthen them as well as to establish new schools. William Adam, a Scottish scholar of Sanskrit and Bengali languages and a friend of Rammohan Roy, collected the data at the height of the Orientalist and Anglicist debate. Adam was not a supporter of either group and advocated for government support to vernacular education. Adam visited every school he enumerated, sat in the classes, and interacted with teachers and students. Like him, T.B. Jervis in South Konkan and A.D. Campbell in Bellary district collected exhaustive information after personally visiting the schools. The colonial state ignored the data collected by them. The reports remained in archives till the end of British rule.

Indigenous vernacular schools – Bombay Presidency

The earliest and most extensive survey was done by Thomas Best Jervis, employed in the statistical survey of the South Konkan district. Jervis began to collect the data soon after the fall of the Peshwa’s rule in 1818 and completed his survey in 1820. This earliest report gives a better view of the condition of pre-colonial education as the field was virtually untouched by British influences. The 2,240 villages in Ratnagiri district had 86 schools, with 1,468 boys (see Table 2.1) and an average student-to-teacher ratio of one teacher to 17 boys.

Of the 82 Hindu teachers, 49 came from non-Brahmin castes, traditionally thought to have had no access to education. Even among the students, 811 out of 1,378 Hindu boys were non-Brahmins. The total population of the district was 600,000, including 128,883 boys and 77,682 girls under the age of 12. The schools were also unevenly distributed. The Sanksi taluka with its 91 villages had schools only in five villages. Ten schools existed in these five villages, which contained 119 boys, comprising 35 Brahmin, 25 Maratha, 21 Prabhu, 28 from artisanal castes, and ten Muslim boys. The

Table 2.1 Teachers and students in Ratnagiri district

<i>Castes</i>	<i>Teachers</i>	<i>Students</i>
Brahmin	33	567
Dominant castes – Prabhu, Vysya, Maratha, Lingayat	40	418
Artisanal castes – Kumbhar, Kansar/Kasar, Simpi, Sonar, Bhandari, Mali, Teli, Sutar, Navi, Koli, Panchal, Dhargar, etc.	9	393
Total Hindu	82	1,378
Muslim	2	65
Jew	2	25
Total	86	1,468

Source: Compiled from the tables attached to letter from T.B. Jervis to the Secretary to the government dated 8 September 1824, General Department, 63, 1824.

ten teachers comprised four Brahmin; three Kunbi; and one each of Prabhu, Shimpi, and Muslim.⁵ In the village Pent in Ouchitghar taluka, Baji Pant Marathe, a Brahmin teacher taught, in a shed belonging to a Teli, one Brahmin, six Sonar, one Shimpi, ten Bhandari, four Sali, three Mali, six Khatri, and one Panchal boy. Similarly, in the village Palee, Amrutrao Bhagwant, a Prabhu, taught, in the village temple, five Brahmin, six Prabhu, seven Sonar, five Kasar, four Maratha, five Shimpi, three Surekuree, one Jangam, three Jews, and seven Muslim boys. This school must have been a very popular one as he had 46 students under him, the highest number in that Taluka.⁶

Jervis collected exhaustive data on education as he was interested in knowing the system of education that existed among the Indians; hence, he did not send it to the government. In 1821, G. L. Pendergast, a member of the Governor's Council, claimed that 'there is hardly a village in which there is not at least one school . . . where young natives are taught reading, writing and arithmetic.'⁷ The governor of Bombay Presidency, Mountstuart Elphinstone, insisted that according to the Hindu religion, only Brahmins had access to education. This was opposed by Francis Warden, who wanted a survey of indigenous schools for a proper understanding of how they worked. Elphinstone ordered the survey to prove his stand and find out whether the indigenous schools were supported by *gaum khurch*, or village expenses.⁸

The data disproved the theories of both Pendergast and Elphinstone. The data is not uniform; for some districts, the caste-wise list of teachers is available, while for others this was done only for students. So, the data of some districts could be tabulated while for others, it cannot be done. For instance, the report says that 380 boys in schools in Thana district came equally from 'Brahmin, Prabhu, Sutar, Bhandari and even coolies.'⁹ In Khandesh, of the 104 vernacular teachers, '60 were Brahmins and 44 non-Brahmins,' and

of the 1,444 students, 486 were Brahmins, and 958 came from artisanal castes. For this district, there is also information that 2,295 Mahar and 2,022 Brahmin boys under the age of 12 did not attend the schools.¹⁰ The Ahmadnagar district had 571 students, with 275 Brahmin, eight Marwari, and 198 artisanal caste students. The district had 90 Muslim students who studied in Arabic schools.¹¹

In Surat, there were 42 'Hindu or Gujarati' schools with 2,223 boys. Parsis had 11 religious schools, and for general education, students attended Gujarati vernacular schools.¹² Broach town and the surrounding villages had 16 schools with 373 boys, comprising Hindu, Muslim, and Parsis students.¹³ In Sangamner, 117 villages had no schools, and in the remaining five villages, there were 21 schools. These schools had 134 Brahmin, 31 Kunbi, 14 Khatri, ten Sonar, 13 Muslim and eight Pardesi children. The 21 teachers comprised 16 Brahmin, one Gujar, one Sonar, two Gholuk, and two Muslims.¹⁴ The data for Sanskrit and Gujarati schools was clubbed together for Sangamner, and it is not possible to calculate the castes of teachers and students in Gujarati vernacular schools. The Ahmadabad district had 928 villages, with 84 schools in 49 villages.¹⁵ The Dharwar district had 146 Marathi, 112 Kannada, seven bilingual, and five Arabic schools with 138 Brahmin, 139 Lingayat, five Hindus of different castes, and nine Muslim teachers. The Belgaum district had 60 Marathi and 26 Kannada schools¹⁶ (see Table 2.2). According to the available statistics, there was one school for 3,359 boys in Poona, one for 4,369 in Khandesh, and one for 2,452 in Dharwar district.¹⁷

The statistics for the Bombay Presidency show that the Brahmin boys studied under non-Brahmin teachers, and non-Brahmin teachers and

Table 2.2 Students in Gujarati- and Kannada-speaking areas

<i>Districts</i>	<i>No. of Schools</i>	<i>Brahmin</i>	<i>Dominant Castes – Wani, Kunbi, Rajput, Marwari, Jain, Lingayat, etc.</i>	<i>Artisanal Caste – Sutar, Mali, Kasar, etc.</i>	<i>Muslim</i>	<i>Total</i>	<i>Average No. of Students per School</i>
Veeragram (140 villages)	6	–	129	29	–	158	26.33
Ahmedabad (928 villages)	84	410	1,772	791	68	2,973	35.39
Dharwar	265	943	2,092	609	118	4,027	15.19
Belgaum	86	212	637	186	14	1,049	12.19

Source: General Department, No. 92, 1825.

students outnumbered Brahmins. Also, the presence of Muslim and Jewish boys along with the Hindu boys studying the Ramayana or Mahabharata in schools conducted in the Hindu temple courtyards shows religious tolerance of all the communities.¹⁸ Caste and religion were not important factors. J.D. DeVitre reported that ‘the children of Muslims and the Hindus, rich and poor, attend indiscriminately, as well as those whose calling requires knowledge of reading and writing, as those who do not.’¹⁹ In spite of the secular composition of schools, the British officials called these vernacular schools ‘Hindu’ and declared that ‘the instruction is not calculated to give to the pupils’ moral and intellectual improvement.’²⁰

Indigenous schools in Madras Presidency

Minute by Munro, 1822

The governor of Madras Presidency, Thomas Munro, initiated a survey of the indigenous education to question the dominant British notion ‘prevalent among certain sections about the ignorance of the people of India.’ In his Minute dated 25 June 1822, he called it ‘mere conjectures of individuals, unsupported by any authentic documents.’ He directed the district officers called Collectors to gather comprehensive data on the indigenous schools.²¹ A.D. Campbell’s report gave detailed information on indigenous education in Bellary district. Reports from other districts are not as descriptive; nonetheless, they do give data on the social composition of the students. The statistics for Nellore include 642 Telugu schools along with 106 Sanskrit; 50 Persian and Arabic; and one each of Tamil, English and Hindustani music schools.²² This makes it difficult to analyse the caste composition of students in vernacular schools for this district.

The fact that, out of the 142,369 Hindu boys, 111,890 belonged to non-Brahmin castes denotes their domination in the indigenous vernacular education (see Table 2.3). The Malabar district was far advanced in comparison to other districts as it had the highest literacy rate.²⁴

The reports also reveal the bias of the Collectors. Harris called reading, writing, and accounts ‘entirely private tuition’ and declared that ‘education is at its lowest ebb’ in Canara district.²⁵ He told the government that he tried to establish a school in Mangalore for the wards of the rich Bunts, but they did not respond. Even after a reminder, he refused to admit that there were any schools in his district.²⁶ Hudleston, the collector of Madura and Dindigal, reported that ‘I made some little enquiry into the state of schools in the district and I see little hope of any improvement. They say they are poor; their children are better employed in attending bullocks by which they gain a livelihood than being at school.’ He suggested the establishment of a few schools for ‘the people of caste, in Madura fort and few towns. . . . I have no doubt the head of the villages would be induced to send their children

Table 2.3 Number of schools and students in the Madras Presidency

<i>Districts</i>	<i>No. of Schools</i>	<i>Brabmin</i>	<i>Vysya</i>	<i>Shudra</i>	<i>All Other Castes</i>	<i>Total Hindu Boys</i>	<i>Muslim Boys</i>	<i>Total</i>	<i>Avg. per School</i>
Arcot N	630	698	630	4,856	538	6,722	552	7,274	11.54
Arcot S	875	997	370	7,938	862	10,167	252	10,419	11.90
Bellary	533	1,185	981	2,998	1,174	6,338	243	6,581	12.22
Canara	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—
Chengalpet	508	858	424	4,809	452	6,543	186	6,729	13.24
Coimbatore	763	918	289	6,379	226	7,812	312	8,124	10.64
Ganjam and Srikakulam	255	808	243	1,001	886	2,938	257	3,195	12.52
Guntur	574	3,089	1,578	1,923	775	7,365	257	7,622	13.27
Kadapa	494	1,416	1,713	1,775	647	5,551	341	5,892	11.92
Madras	305	358	789	3,056	313	4,516	143	4,659	15.27
Madura	844	1,186	1,119	7,247	2,977	12,529	1,147	13,676	16.20
Malabar	759	2,230	84	3,697	2,756	8,767	3,196	11,963	15.76
Masulipatanam	434	1,693	1,108	1,506	470	4,777	275	5,052	11.64
Nellore	804	2,466	1,641	2,407	432	6,946	617	7,563	9.40
Rajmundry	291	904	653	466	546	2,569	52	2,621	9.00
Selam	386	783	324	1,674	1,382	4,163	432	4,595	11.90
Srirangapatnam and Ganjam	41	48	23	298	158	527	86	613	14.95
Tanjore	884	3,180	222 + 369*	10,661	2,429	16,861	933	17,794	20.12
Tinnevely	607	2,016	—	2,889	3,557	8,462	796	9,258	15.25
Tiruchirapalli	790	1,198	229	7,745	329	9,501	690	10,191	12.90
Vishakapattanam	914	4,448	983	1,999	1,885	9,315	97	9,412	10.29
Total	11,691	30,479	13,772	75,324	22,794	142,369	10,864	153,233	13.10

Source: Compiled from the information given by BR to the governor, dated 21 February 1825, Nos. 17–18, BRP, No. 1011.²³

*Kshatriya students

there.²⁷ Smalley, in Chengalpet, reported that 'education is not in a civilised state.'²⁸ Collectors like Campbell at Bellary and Cockburn at Selam strongly recommended state support to schools. M.D. Cockburn regretted that out of a population of 1 million only 4,650 were in schools, and urged the government to promote education.²⁹

Minute by A. D. Campbell, 1823

Alexander Duncan Campbell (1789–1857), the Scottish Collector of Bellary district, prepared the most comprehensive report. Campbell was a scholar of Telugu and Kannada languages. The Bellary district had a population of 927,857, with a total number of 6,581 boys (6,398 Hindu and 243 Muslim) and 60 girls in its 533 schools with an average of 12 students per school. None of these schools, comprising 235 Kannada, 226 Telugu, 23 Marathi, 21 Persian, and four Tamil schools, received any state support. Besides these, there were 23 Sanskrit schools.³⁰ The report described in detail the working of the schools:

In the vernacular schools, the boys enter the school at the age of five; some of them due to poverty study for five years while others study 9–10 years. Many continue their education for 14–15 years. The schools begin at six in the morning. The punishment is severe, the idle scholar is flogged, and often suspended by both hands and a pulley to the roof, or obliged to kneel down and raise incessantly, which is a most painful and fatiguing, but a healthy mode of punishment. The schools are divided into four classes; the children begin their study by tracing the alphabet on sand boards, and move on to writing on boards (*Hulligi-Halige*) with pencils made of white clay substance (*Bultupa-Balapa*), which resemble a crayon with the exception of being rather harder. These boards are prepared in two different ways. The first kind, a regular board of three feet long and one foot wide is smeared with little rice and pulverised charcoal. In the second kind cloth stiffened with rice water, doubled into folds resembling a book and covered with a composition of charcoal and several gums. The writing on either of these boards could be effaced by a wet cloth.³¹

After the children learnt to write, they were taught composition, grammar, literature, arithmetic, multiplication tables, deciphering various handwritings, writing common letters, and drawing up forms of agreements. The texts used were *Ramayana*, *Mahabharata*, and *Bhagavata*. In addition to these, the children of the manufacturing class studied *Nagalingayna Katha* and *Vishwakarma Poorana*, and the Lingayat children studied *Raghavanka Kavya*, *Basaveswara Purana*, *Unabhavamoorta*, and *Geerija Kalyana*.

Besides these religion-based texts, *Panchatantra*; dictionaries like *Nighantoo* and *Amara*; and grammar texts like *Shabdamani Darpana*, *Andhradeepika*, and *Andhranamasangraha* were taught.³² Campbell very strongly recommended state support to the vernacular schools.³³

Indigenous schools in Bengal Presidency – *Adam's Report*

William Adam (1796–1881) came from Dunfermline, Scotland, as a Baptist missionary in 1818. Under the influence of Rammohan Roy, he gave up the Baptist Church and became a Unitarian. Intimate knowledge of Bengali and Sanskrit languages, native culture, and sympathy with vernacular education enabled Adam to offer his assistance to governor-general Bentinck in documenting the indigenous schools. Adam began the quest ‘to know what the country needs to be done for it by Government; we must first know what the country has done and is doing for itself.’³⁴ When Adam began his survey, there was very little accurate information available on the indigenous schools of Bengal Presidency except speculative data created by the officials sitting in Calcutta working out on paper. A member of the General Committee of Public Instruction had stated that ‘if one rupee per mensem were expanded on each existing village school in the lower provinces, the amount would probably fall little short of 12 lakhs of rupees per annum.’ This meant that there were 100,000 schools in Bengal and Bihar and a village school for every 400 persons.³⁵ Adam rejected such speculative reports³⁶ and also refused to rely on the missionary reports, as they ‘have religious objects in view which are foreign to the purpose of this inquiry.’³⁷

Adam on an average spent two months in each district to collect data and interview people. The forms were prepared in Bengali, Hindi, and Urdu, and separate forms were prepared to ascertain the state of domestic and adult instruction.³⁸ An in-depth study by an independent and meticulous observer has brought out minute details of the workings of the indigenous schools, such as the age of school-going children, religion, caste, and such other relevant information. Adam found during the enquiry that ‘the rich were more difficult to manage than the poor . . . selfishness and self-sufficiency of the rich, ignorance of the poor’ stood out as a prominent feature of the rural society. Many villages did not have a single person who was able to read and write or count, and in such villages, a house-to-house survey was conducted. In some places people were hostile; in other places, people tried to pass off a nonexistent school as a popular school. Two pundits followed Adam to Calcutta from Burdwan district to communicate the details of their schools, of which Adam could not find a trace. Whenever the people understood the object of inquiry, they were friendly.³⁹

In Midnapore district, all Bengali teachers were Muslims, while in the Muslim majority Mymensingh, all teachers were Hindus.⁴⁰ Dinajpur had 119

Bengali schools with an average of 20 students per teacher. The Nadia district, which had 5,749 villages, was known for Sanskrit schools had no Bengali school. In Rangpur district 14 out of 19 subdivisions had no Bengali schools, and in the remaining five there were ten Bengali and two Persian schools. In Nattore 10 Bengali schools had 167 boys; benevolent individuals paid the salaries of teachers.⁴¹ Adam reported that 'the parents of good caste do not hesitate to send their children to schools conducted by teachers of inferior castes and even of a different religion.'⁴² South Bihar did not have a single Brahmin teacher, and Tirhut, the stronghold of Mythili Brahmins, had only one Brahmin teacher (see Table 2.4), and the largest chunk of 72 students was from untouchable Sunri caste⁴³ (see Table 2.5). In Cuttack, Puri, and Balasore, Andrew Sterling's elaborate report on these areas contains no reference to any schools.⁴⁴ There is a difference between the numbers mentioned by Adam in the narrative and the caste-wise list provided. The tables are prepared on the basis of the caste-wise list of students and teachers. Since the handwritten report submitted by Adam could not be traced in the archive, this work relies on the published version.

Out of 1,463 Hindu teachers, 1,255 were non-Brahmins, of whom 118 were from artisanal castes, while 17 were from untouchable castes (see Table 2.6).

Table 2.4 Castes of teachers in the Bengal Presidency

<i>Castes of Teachers</i>	<i>Murshidabad</i>	<i>Birbhum</i>	<i>Burdwan</i>	<i>South Bihar</i>	<i>Tirhoot</i>	<i>Total</i>
Kayastha	39	256	369	278	77	1,019
Brahmin	14	86	107	—	1	208
Baidya/Vaidya	1	2	1	—	—	4
Kshatriya/ Rajput/Aguri	4	3	30	—	—	37
Banik/Vysya	1	10	8	1	2	22
Artisanal castes – Teli, Sonar, Tanti, Kurmi, Mali, Napit, etc.	4	43	104	5	—	118
Untouchable castes – Sunri, Kalu, Chandal, Pasi, etc.	3	7	7	—	—	17
Total Hindu teachers	66	407	626	284	80	1,463
Muslim	—	4	9	1	—	14
Total number of schools	66	411	635	285	80	1,470

Source: Compiled from the information given in *Adam's Report*, pp. 228–247.

Table 2.5 Castes of students in the Bengal Presidency

<i>Castes of Students</i>	<i>Murshidabad</i>	<i>Birbhum</i>	<i>Burdwan</i>	<i>South Bihar</i>	<i>Tirhut</i>	<i>Total</i>
Kayastha	129	487	1,846	220	51	2,733
Brahmin	181	1,853	3,429	256	25	5,744
Baidya	14	71	125	—	—	210
Kshatriya	38	148	969	189	86	1,430
Rajput, Aguri						
Banik/Vysya	144	742	928	591	32	2,437
Artisanal	479	2,270	4,361	1,466	299	8,875
castes – Sutar, Teli, Tanti, Napit, etc.						
Untouchable	73	527	750	198	81	1,629
castes – Sunri Kalu, Dom, Chandal, etc.						
Total Hindu students	1,058	6,098	12,408	2,920	574	23,058
Muslim	82	232	769	172	5	1,260
Total	1,140	6,330	13,177	3,092	579	24,318

Source: Compiled from the information given in *Adam's Report*, pp. 228–247.

Table 2.6 Low-caste boys in the indigenous and missionary schools in Bardaman district

<i>Low/ Untouchable Castes</i>	<i>Indigenous Schools</i>	<i>Missionary Schools</i>	<i>Total</i>
Kalu	174	33	207
Sunri	168	20	188
Bagdhi	117	21	138
Dom	58	3	61
Chandal	60	1	61
Jalia	28	—	28
Dhoba	19	5	24
Muchi	16	—	16
Hari	11	—	11
Tior	2	2	4
Lahari	3	—	3
Garar	2	—	2
Kahar	2	—	2
Mal	2	—	2
Maitya	1	—	1
Pasi	—	1	1
Total	663	86	749

Source: *Adam's Report*, p. 242.

In Burdwan district four teachers taught gratuitously, consisting of one Muslim, two caste Hindus, and one from Chandal caste. The statistics for students in Bardaman comprised of both the indigenous and the missionary schools. Adam gave separate statistics for untouchable castes.

Out of 23,058 Hindu students, 8,875 were from artisanal and 1,629 from untouchable castes (see Table 2.6) (traditionally considered to have had no access to education). In Birbhum, students from Gwala (cowherd) caste (560) were the second-highest, ahead of Kayastha boys (487). In the same district the untouchable Kalu caste stood sixth with 258 students. In Burdwan district, Sadgop caste, with 1,254 students, stood in third place. In Tirhut, the 72 low-caste Sunri students were far ahead of all upper-caste students.

The North-Western Provinces (NWP)

The report on the state of indigenous education for the North-Western Provinces (NWP) was prepared during 1850–1851 by Henry Stuart Reid. The area corresponding to modern Uttar Pradesh was called North-Western Province as it was to the northwest of Calcutta, the seat of the British rule. Reid visited several places and also made use of the information collected by 41 subordinate officers in Agra, Aligarh, Bareilly, Etawah, Farrukabad, Mainpuri, Mathura, and Shahjahanpur districts. Like other parts of India, these schools were not evenly distributed. These eight districts had 50 towns and 14,987 villages. There were 1,039 schools in these 50 towns, and 1,967 schools were scattered among 1,535 villages. Together they had 27,853 boys. There were no schools in the remaining 12,987 villages. The vernacular schools consisted of five Urdu schools with 49 boys, 55 bilingual Urdu-Hindi schools, 1,259 Hindi schools with 10,009 boys, and 233 bilingual Hindi-Sanskrit schools with 2,845 boys, where some instruction in Sanskrit was given to boys studying Hindi. These schools had 1,821 (58 per cent) Hindu and 1,311 (42 per cent) Muslim teachers. Among the Hindu teachers, 46.4 per cent were Kayasthas, 43.9 per cent were Brahmin, 1.7 per cent were Rajput, 1.8 per cent were Bania, and 6 per cent belonged to artisanal castes. In Agra, Aligarh, and Mathura, the Brahmin teachers were predominant, and in other districts, it was the Kayasthas. The figures for Brahmin teachers contain both the Sanskrit schools, Hindi and bilingual Hindi-Sanskrit schools. It is difficult to say how many Brahmin teachers taught Hindi alone.⁴⁵ The Sanskrit teachers were called Panditji and Gurujī. In the vernacular schools Brahmin teachers were called Misrji; Kayastha teachers were addressed as Lalaji and Bhayaji. The teachers from the barber caste were called Nai Pandhe.⁴⁶ Of the 21,342 Hindu boys, 6,614 were Brahmins, 10,429 non-Brahmin upper castes, and 4,299 lower-caste boys. There were 5,491 Muslim students. The number for Brahmin and Muslim students includes those who were in Sanskrit and Arabic schools.⁴⁷

Indigenous education in Punjab

The British conquered Punjab in 1849, and the report on the state of indigenous education was prepared in 1853. In Punjab, the official language of the Sikh rulers was Persian, and the Persian schools dominated indigenous education, along with Sanskrit, Arabic, the Sikh religious schools which taught *Granth Saheb* in Gurumukhi, and the Lande schools which taught bookkeeping to children of traders. The Persian schools were attended by the boys of all the three communities, and the Hindu Khatri boys outnumbered all others. Arnold reported that the Hindus were so fond of Persian literature that often thieves and murderers lured Hindu boys who wore gold earrings on the pretext of helping them to read popular Persian texts like *Gulistan* and *Bostan*. Arnold reported that the 'teaching profession was virtually in the hands of Muslims and it is remarkable that their schools were largely attended by Hindus.'⁴⁸ The indigenous education in Punjab differed from that in other parts of India in three aspects. First, women were present both as students and teachers, and there was no prejudice against educating them. Second, there were instances of the entire community contributing to the maintenance of schools. Third, cash payments, and sometimes regular salaries, were given to the teachers.⁴⁹

An estimate of indigenous vernacular schools

The relationship between the local administration and the indigenous vernacular schools was virtually nonexistent. The kings neither gave financial assistance nor patronised any school even though the latter supplied officers for the administration. These schools were open to almost all castes and religions. Brahmin, Prabhu, Jew, Muslim, potter, ironsmith, and shepherd boys studied in the Hindu temple courtyards. Similarly, non-Brahmin and Muslim teachers taught Brahmin and non-Brahmin boys. In South Bihar, all Brahmin students studied under non-Brahmin teachers. The untouchable castes had access to schools in Bengal Presidency, while they were absent in Bombay Presidency, and it is difficult to derive any information from the data on 'all other castes' in the Madras Presidency.

The castes of teachers differed from place to place. The Baidyas and Kayasths outnumbered the Brahmins as teachers in Bengal, Bihar, and NWP. In Marathi and Gujarati-speaking districts of the Bombay Presidency, Brahmins were ahead of Wanis and Prabhus, and in Madras Presidency the majority of teachers were Vellalar, followed by Brahmins, Nairs, and Pillais. In Karnataka, the Lingayat teachers outnumbered Brahmins. Baidya, Kayasth, Wanees, and Lingayat students outnumbered Brahmin students in the whole of northern India, Gujarat, and Karnataka. Brahmin students, followed by Prabhu, Modaliar, Nair, and Pillai, dominated schools in Maharashtra and Madras Presidencies. There were teachers from what the British officers called 'half-caste'.⁵⁰

The schools were not held in a permanently designated place. They were held in the houses of masters or a house belonging to a rich person, temples, and sheds. None of these single-teacher schools had a fixed building designated for teaching. Of the 86 schools in Konkan, 28 were held in temples and the rest in private dwellings or sheds. The number of students also differed considerably. The smallest school, with two students, was in Konkan, while the largest, with 150 students, was in Kaira town in Gujarat. On average, a school consisted of 10 to 20 students. There were many schools with 35 to 45 students.

Income of the teachers

The village community did not hire the teachers, so there was no regular income. If the teacher found his income dwindling, he would move elsewhere, and the school would close down. He was paid by the parents or the guardians of the students he taught. In Bengal, students paid 2 to 8 annas per month and food articles for a day's requirement. Rupees, annas, and pice were units of currencies used across India. An anna was worth 4 pice, and a rupee was worth 16 annas. In Bengal, teachers instructed even those students who could not pay. In Bihar, Adam did not find any instances of free instruction even though the people were poorer than those in Bengal.⁵¹ One possible reason could be the difference in the income of the teachers. The average income of a teacher in Bengal was 3 rupees, 12 annas, and 3 pice per month; in Bihar, it was 1 rupee, 12 anna, and 9 pice per month.⁵² In Bombay it was 6 rupees per month with some gifts.⁵³ In Punjab it was two rupees and eight annas. Many teachers taught for free 'from a desire to devote themselves to the service of god.'⁵⁴ In Gujarat, during marriages and important festivals, the teachers received small amounts of cash as presents.⁵⁵ In Malabar, the schoolmasters received a monthly fee from each student of four annas to 4 rupees.⁵⁶ Throughout India, in addition to the regular fee, the schoolmasters received a certain measure of grain and other agricultural produce during festivals, or in some places, regularly. This income from kind was not in lieu of cash. For instance, Surat district had 139 schools with 3,000 students. The average yearly earnings of the 139 schoolmasters were 5,052 rupees and 2 annas, while the flour they received was valued at an estimated 915 rupees and 1 anna.⁵⁷ So, each master received 36.34 rupees in cash and 6.58 rupees' worth of flour a year.

In Marathi and Kannada speaking areas of the Bombay Presidency, the students paid a monthly fee of 1 or 2 annas, while in Gujarat the amount was paid on occasion of a boy's progress.

When the boy commence[s] learning, two-quarters of a rupee is given to the teacher. On a boy commencing to learn the formation of letter one rupee is given. The scholar besides these payments

daily presents the teacher with one-quarter of a *seer* of grain. When a boy becomes perfect in reading, writing and is dismissed by the tutor, two to five rupee is given. Children of the Hindu, Muslim and Parsi priests were exempt from it. At a school in Jambusar in Broach district, the masters received an annual payment of 30 to 50 rupees in cash. The allowances to the schoolmasters were paid by the parents or friends of the scholars.⁵⁸

In the NWP, of the 3,127 teachers, 460 imparted gratuitous instructions. Most of the teachers got anywhere from 1 to 5 rupees per month, and a small part of it was in kind. This income was lower than 'the pay received by grass cutter.'⁵⁹ In many places in Punjab regular salaries were paid to the teachers. In Talwandi district, it was 1 rupee and 2 annas, while in Lahore and Kasur it was as high as 7 rupees and 8 annas to 8 rupees and 8 annas per month.⁶⁰

In Madras Presidency, Srirangapattana had 41 schools, and the boys paid 5 annas per month, leading to an annual income for each teacher of 57 rupees, 5 annas, and 5 pice.⁶¹ In Coimbatore, the parents paid anywhere from 3 to 14 rupees per year per child. They also gave gifts during Duserra and also when the children began a new book.⁶² In Vishakapattanam the boys paid anywhere from 1 anna to 1 rupee per month.⁶³ In Rajmundry it was from 2 annas to 1 rupee. In this district of 1,200 villages, only 207 had schools.⁶⁴ In Chengalput, a schoolmaster earned anywhere from three and a half to 12 rupees a month. The average earning was around 7 rupees.⁶⁵ The difference in the school fee was based on the ability of the parents to pay:

A rich family paid more to the teacher than the poor one. The rich families in all castes sponsored poor students by paying their fee. These schools enjoyed no government support granted by earlier governments, entirely supported by parents of the scholars.⁶⁶

The collector of Masulipatanam reported that, on average, a boy attending a Telugu school spent 6 annas per month on 'paper, cadjans, and books.'⁶⁷ The monthly fee paid by each scholar varied from 4 to 8 annas. Teachers, in general, did not earn more than 6 or 7 rupees a month, which Munro considered 'not an allowance sufficient to induce men properly qualified to follow the profession.'⁶⁸

The curriculum

The indigenous schools cannot be dismissed as village schools, which have a connotation of providing rudimentary literacy to peasant children. The indigenous schools across India gave a very high level of literacy and numeracy to all boys. For instance, a boy in an indigenous school in Malabar

in 1708 pointed out problems with the argument of renowned missionary Bartholomaeus Ziegenbalg.⁶⁹ There was no visible difference in the standard of instruction between rural and urban schools. The bright students from these schools who entered modern schools could master 'cube root, four books of Euclid, and Algebra up to division' within a year and answer difficult questions 'with astonishing rapidity.'⁷⁰

In indigenous schools, the writing was taught first and reading later. On the first day, the students began tracing the vowels and consonants with fingers on a sandboard. In the next stage, they wrote on plantain leaves and wooden boards. In the Bengal Presidency, the Bengali schools used plantain leaves, while the Hindi schools used wooden boards. Wooden boards were used in South India too, and Campbell's Report explains the process of preparing such boards. They were prepared by dipping a stiff white cloth in rice starch and drying it, repeating the process several times until a very stiff cloth was obtained. It was then dipped in a solution of charcoal and gum and dried again. It was then fixed to a wooden board and a steatite pencil or a white crayon was used to write on them. They were next instructed to write on palm leaf with a reed pen held in the fist, not with the fingers, with ink made of charcoal, which rubbed out, joining vowels to consonants to form compound letters, syllables, and words. Next, the boys learnt tables of numeration; money; weights and measures; and the correct mode of writing the distinctive names of persons, castes, and places. This was the curriculum during the first year of schooling. In the second year, the boys advanced to arithmetic and the use of plantain leaf, on which they wrote with ink made of lamp-black. This continued for about six months, during which they were taught addition, subtraction, multiplication and division, as well as the simplest cases of the mensuration of land, commercial, and agricultural accounts along with the modes of address proper in writing letters to different persons. In the final stage, the boys were further instructed in agricultural and commercial accounts, and the more advanced boys wrote popular poetical compositions.⁷¹

The boys began by practising on sand boards and then moved up to palm and plantain leaves, and the most advanced boys used paper for writing. In Burdwan district, Adam found that, of 12,408 students, only 702 wrote on sand board, 7,113 wrote on palm leaves, 2,765 wrote on plantain leaves, and 2,610 students used paper. In South Bihar, the students did not use leaves. Here, 1,560 students wrote on sand boards, 1,503 wrote on wooden boards, 42 wrote on brazen plate, and 39 wrote on paper.⁷² In the NWP, black 'writing boards 18 inches long by 9 inch broad were in universal use.' They were made of

wood blackened by charred coconut shell pounded and mixed with water. There were also red, and green painted wooden boards. They were called *takhti* in Persian schools and *patti* in Hindi schools.

These boards could be bought for one anna in the markets. The chalks used to write on these boards were called *batti*. They were made of white earth called *pindaol* pounded and mixed up with water, then rolled between hands into proper shape and dried for use.⁷³

The books used for teaching vernacular consisted of episodes from either the *Ramayana* or the *Mahabharata*. Most of them were related to the birth of Rama, the boyish amusement of Krishna, his friendship with Sudhama, or the generosity of Karna. In Bihar books like *Sundar Kanda*, *Dadhilila*, *Sudam Charitra*, *Sundar Sudam*, and *Data Karna* were used to teach the language, while no arithmetic was taught.⁷⁴ In Bengal, the curriculum consisted of the arithmetic of Shubhankar, *Chanakya*, *Amara Kosha*, and Kasiram Das's *Mahabharata*.⁷⁵ In Bombay, *Punchopaikyan* and *Vidhurniti* were taught in Marathi schools; in Karnataka, *Someshwara Shataka* and *Jaimini Bharata*, written by a sixteenth-century Kannada poet, Lakshmisha, were taught. The *Amara Kosha* (dictionary) was taught across India. *Kural* was used to teach Tamil but information on Malayalam texts used in the indigenous school is not available. Many schools used manuscripts to teach, while in others, the teacher taught from memory. There was an absence of printed books. Sometimes very rare manuscripts were used. In Karnataka, there were instances of printed books being used for teaching students at a higher level.⁷⁶ Here the teachers were 'men of higher attainment, as they were expected to teach books in both prose and poetry.'⁷⁷

In Gujarat, arithmetic was emphasised, but this was absent in neighbouring Marathi speaking areas. Students were taught to 'cast up accounts and to draw out bills of exchange.' Gujarati children learnt multiplication tables first and then the alphabet, while it was the opposite for the rest of India. The indigenous schools lacked teaching aids and material for teaching. The method of instruction was both written and oral. The written part consisted of tracing letters and doing arithmetic on sand boards, while the multiplication tables were taught orally; verse was taught through 'chorus recital.' The boys and teachers used every available written material they could lay their hands on to teach and learn. In the Marathi-speaking areas of the Bombay Presidency, these consisted of letters of officials, such as Mamlatdars, and even village accounts.⁷⁸ The curriculum was more or less common across India. In some places, writing and composition were emphasised over accounts, but the overall competency of the students remained the same.

Punishment was severe, and caning was prevalent and widespread.⁷⁹ In Bengal, the schoolmaster beat the boys for not learning the lessons.⁸⁰ In Belary district, Campbell reported that an 'idle scholar is flogged, and often suspended by both hands and a pulley to the roof, or obliged to kneel down and rise incessantly, which is most painful and fatiguing.'⁸¹ In the NWP, punishments included slapping the face, tying a student's hands behind his neck, and weighing down a student's head with all the writing boards of the school.⁸²

School timings

The schools functioned from 6 a.m. to 7 or 8 p.m. with two breaks in between. The three sessions consisted of 6 a.m. to 9 or 10 a.m., 10 or 11 a.m. to 1 or 2 p.m., and 2 or 3 p.m. to 7 or 8 p.m. There were four holidays per month – full moon, new moon, and the day after each. The schools were closed during important festivals throughout the year.⁸³ The NWP had more holidays.⁸⁴ In Vishakapattanam, Cuddalore, and Guntur districts, the schools functioned until 8 p.m.⁸⁵ It is surprising that all these are on the east coast, where the sun sets early, and that the schools functioned beyond sunset. Since the reading was done in the evening in all the schools, oil lamps must have been used. The collector of Guntur gave the detailed schedule of the schoolboys in a day. The boys came to the school at 6 a.m., practised reading, and returned home at 9 a.m. for morning meal. They returned to school before 11 a.m., practiced writing till 2 or 3, went to their respective homes to eat their rice, and returned by 4 p.m. They practiced reading, again, until 7 in the evening.⁸⁶ The students who attended classes were very regular. In Murshidabad district, Adam found that only 18 were absent out of 998 Hindu students and that four were absent among 82 Muslim students. In South Bihar, out of 2,839 Hindu students, only 14 were absent.⁸⁷ Boys began school at around 6 or 7 years of age, and ‘clever boys completed their education in four years; those of medium talent, six years; and the dunces (if any), eight years.’⁸⁸ Most of the boys spent on average five to seven years in school.

Institutions of higher learning

The Sanskrit schools

Sanskrit schools existed across India. In most instances, they were individual schools conducted by a Brahmin teacher, and there were also clusters of such schools, such as Banaras and Nadia. These schools were called *tols* in Bengal and *pathasalas* in other parts. They taught Sanskrit grammar, Vedas, Nyaya, Dharmasastras, poetry, and astronomical works. The students studied for a minimum of 12 to 13 years, and admission was limited in most cases to Brahmin boys. In Bengal and Kerala, non-Brahmins, too, studied Sanskrit. The teaching was free. The earliest report available for these schools in Bengal was prepared around 1811, when governor-general Minto wanted to establish a Sanskrit college at Nadia. According to the report, there were ‘46 Sanskrit schools with 380 Brahmin boys all aged between 25–35 years. Few commenced their learning before the age of 21 but often pursued for 15 years. Having acquired a perfect knowledge of the *shastra* and all its arcane, they returned to their native homes, and set up as pundits and teachers themselves.’⁸⁹ When Adam visited Nadia in 1836,

he found only 25 *tols* with classrooms consisting of a thatched chamber for the pundit and students, and two or three rows of mudhovels in which the students resided. The pundit did not live with the students; he came in the morning and stayed until sunset. The pundit was responsible for food and clothing for the students and repairs of the huts from the land grants he had received from earlier rulers.⁹⁰

The Sanskrit pundits were divided into three categories – *sabdikas*, the lowest class, philologists or teachers of general literature; *smartas*, the next highest class, teachers of law; and *naiyayikas*, the highest class, teachers of logic. The people of the village, during funeral obsequies, marriages, and festivals, gave dana, or gifts, consisting of ‘articles of consumption and cash to these pundits . . . amounting to on an average of 11 rupees a month.’ Many times these pundits managed to get only 2 rupees, and there were also occasions when they got 30 rupees in a month.⁹¹ Adam reported that, in Rajshahi, only two Sanskrit pundits out of 39, had an endowment to run their schools. The pundit at Basudevpur, Srinatha Survabhauma, had an endowment of 8 rupees per year; Kalinatha Vachaspati, at Samaskhalasi, had an endowment of 60 rupees per year. Both of them taught Sanskrit grammar, and these endowments were instituted by Rani Bhawani (1716–1795), a widow who managed the estate of her husband. Another four endowments that existed earlier had been discontinued, and Adam recommended their reinstatement.⁹² In Natore, 39 pundits (37 Brahmin and two Baidya) were un-endowed, and Adam stated that ‘there are materials for a Hindu University in which all the branches of Sanskrit learning might be taught.’ The ages of pundits ranged from 25 to 82 years. Adam was impressed with their

Humbleness and simplicity of their characters, their dwellings, and their apparel, forcible contrast with the extent of their acquirements . . . several of these men are adepts in the subtleties of the profoundest grammar of what is probably the most philosophical language in existence . . . familiar with all the varieties and applications of their national laws, and literature; and indulging in the abstruse and most interesting disquisitions in logical and ethical philosophy. . . . I have observed some of the worthiest speak with unaffected humility of their own pretensions to learning, with admiration of the learning of a stranger.⁹³

These 39 schools at Natore had 397 boys, some of them were local boys who resided in the village, while others came from outside. The latter group was housed with the pundit, who took care of ‘food and minor personal expenses.’ The students joined these schools from the ages of 7 to 14 years and left the school after completing 13 years of studies; some of them went on to study for 22 years.⁹⁴ In Murshidabad, the 24 Sanskrit schools maintained by 24 teachers had 152 Brahmin and one Kayastha student. These

24 teachers received 123 rupees per year as gifts which were 'at such uncertain intervals.' One of the teachers had a government pension of 5 rupees per year, and another had a 10 bigha endowment of land yielding around 10 rupees per year. Several endowments given by Rani Bhavani were for life, and with the death of a teacher, they were discontinued.⁹⁵ So if a student of a teacher continued the school, he did not inherit the endowment.

In Beerbhoom, there were 56 Sanskrit schools with 57 Brahmin and one Baidya teacher, and each one of them on average earned 53 rupees per year. These schools had 393 students and were conducted in the halls of individuals (*baithak-khanas*), temples (*chandi mantaps*), and schoolhouses built by teachers themselves. The students of 21 schools received nothing in the form of presents, and the remaining 35 school students received 252 rupees per year.⁹⁶ In Burdwan, there were 190 Sanskrit schools with as many teachers. Four of these teachers were Baidyas, and the rest were Brahmins and their average income was 63 rupees per year. The students of 105 schools did not receive any gifts, and the remaining 85 schools received 391 rupees per year as gifts. The teachers here were not just instructors but also authors, having composed works in Sanskrit.⁹⁷

The 27 Sanskrit schools of South Bihar had an annual income of 370 rupees each, and about half of the teachers had themselves built schoolhouses. These schools had 437 students and 'a majority of them were supported by family-funds.' In Tirhoot, there were 56 Sanskrit schools with 214 students, and 50 schools received an annual gift of 50 rupees each. Six teachers supported their school 'from the resources of their own families, or supported themselves from farming.' Two of the teachers had built school buildings. The students of each school received occasional gifts amounting to 50 rupees per year.⁹⁸

The data available for Bombay Presidency is not as elaborate as that for Bengal Presidency. One possible reason could be that Elphinstone, who initiated the survey, was keen on the status of vernacular schools. So, the reports concentrate on vernacular schools rather than the teachers, students, and curriculum of Sanskrit and Arabic schools. In Surat there were 18 Sanskrit schools with 66 boys.⁹⁹ The officer in Dharwar reported that 'there are Brahmins who taught *Vedas*, *Shastras* and *Puranas* gratis.'¹⁰⁰ Khandesh had 37 schools which taught *Vedas* to 486 boys, 17 schools taught *Jyotish* (Hindu astrology) to 52, six schools taught *Vaidya*, or medicine, to 11, and six schools taught *shastras* to 52 boys. In Poona City, 51 schools taught *Vedas*, and the boys studied anywhere from 10 to 20 years. Astrology was taught in ten schools; the Vedanta, in two; the *Mimansa*, in one; the Dharmastras, in four; logic, in seven; grammar, in ten; and poetry, in four.¹⁰¹

In the Madras Presidency, the North Arcot district had 69 schools, consisting of 43 Vedic schools with 298 boys; 117 boys studied Dharmastras in 24 schools; and three boys studied astrology in two schools.¹⁰² The 51 Sanskrit schools of Chengalput had 398 boys.¹⁰³ Coimbatore district

had 179 Sanskrit schools, 94 of which taught theologies; 69, law; and ten, astronomy. Together, they had 724 Brahmin students. Some of the schools had land grants, and others did not have any support. The 25 Sanskrit schools with 138 boys in Karur had no financial support, while ten schools with 92 boys at Sattemangalam had an annual income of 1,409 rupees.¹⁰⁴ Madura district had Agrahara villages where the Vedas and Puranas were taught. They had land grants yielding 20–50 rupees (*fanams*) per year.¹⁰⁵ Tanjore had 109 Sanskrit schools with 769 boys.¹⁰⁶ Trichinopoly district had ten Sanskrit schools with 131 boys.¹⁰⁷ Selam had 53 Sanskrit colleges with 324 boys.¹⁰⁸

In Masulipattanam district, 11 Sanskrit schools with 66 boys taught Vedas, 30 schools with 150 boys taught law, and eight astronomy schools had 35 boys.¹⁰⁹ Rajamundry had 279 Sanskrit schools with 1,454 boys. The collector reported that the quality of education was not high, and 1,033 boys studying the Vedas were ‘barely taught to perform ceremonies.’ Of 1,200 villages, only 207 had schools. The Brahmin boys here spent 5–7 years of learning. In spite of that, 69 teachers had land grants, and 13 had money grants given by former zamindars. One teacher was supported by a scholar, while 196 teachers taught Sanskrit gratis.¹¹⁰ Guntur had 171 places where theology, law, astronomy, etc. were taught to 939 boys.¹¹¹ In Srikakulam and Ganjam there were no Sanskrit schools. The boys were educated by their fathers or brothers or by any other relations.¹¹² Malabar had a very large Sanskrit school with 75 Brahmin boys, built by the Zamorin Raja.¹¹³

Malabar was far more advanced than other areas. It had 18 Vysya, 176 Shudra, and 496 boys from other castes studying astrology in Sanskrit. There were also three Brahmin girls studying law, five Vysya, 19 Shudra, and 14 other caste girls studied astrology.¹¹⁴ In the NWP, there were 205 Sanskrit schools with 2,845 boys who studied religious texts, grammar, astronomy, astrology, poetry, logic, mathematics, and medicine.¹¹⁵ We do not have disaggregated data for this region.

Table 2.7 Students in Sanskrit schools in Malabar

	<i>Brahmin Boys</i>	<i>Brahmin Girls</i>	<i>Vysya Boys</i>	<i>Vysya Girls</i>	<i>Shudra Boys</i>	<i>Shudra Girls</i>	<i>All Other Caste Boys</i>	<i>All Other Caste Girls</i>	<i>Muslim</i>
Theology/ Vedas	471	3	–	–	–	–	–	–	–
Astronomy	78	–	18	5	176	19	490	14	–
Ethics	22	–	–	–	–	–	31	–	–
Ayurveda	31	–	–	–	59	–	100	–	4
Metaphysics	34	–	–	–	–	–	31	–	–

Source: Vaughan to BR, 5 August 1823, No 51.

An assessment of Sanskrit schools

Sanskrit pundits and temple priests were two distinct categories: Pundits did not work as priests in temples, and priests did not teach Sanskrit. Sanskrit schools were single-teacher schools, teaching only one branch of knowledge. Sanskrit pundits were well respected in the society, but it did not translate into power or wealth. Sanskrit teaching was not a hereditary occupation, and often it was not the son of a pundit but his student who continued the school. The boys usually commenced the study of Sanskrit at about 12 years of age, and sometimes they were as old as 21. In Bengal, the Sanskrit schools teaching grammar, literature, astrology, and medicine were open to all castes; however, the studying of *Vedas*, *Dharmasastras*, and *Darsanas* was limited to Brahmins boys alone. Both the teachers as well as the students were extremely poor. A Sanskrit pundit earned less than that of an agricultural labourer.¹¹⁶ Since tradition demanded that he could not charge a fee for imparting knowledge, his condition was miserable. Adam strongly recommended financial support to these schools. Adam reported that ‘there was no mutual connection or dependence between vernacular and Sanskrit schools. The former are not considered preparatory to the other, nor do the latter profess to complete the course of study which has been begun elsewhere.’¹¹⁷

Arabic schools

The Arabic schools, called Madrasas, mostly attached to large mosques, existed across India. They taught the Arabic language, grammar, the Koran, and Islamic law. In Bengal, Murshidabad and Birbhum had two Madrasas each. The Burdwan district had eight Madrasas. South Bihar had 12, and Tirhut had four. The Arabic schools were held in dedicated school buildings. A Madrasa building in Burdwan was estimated at 50,000 rupees. The Madrasas also had large endowments. Some of the Arabic teachers ‘possessed considerable property personal and endowed.’¹¹⁸ They gave free instruction and sometimes food and clothing to many poor students. The NWP had 120 Arabic schools with 908 boys and 157 bilingual Arabic-Persian schools with 1,284 boys.¹¹⁹

The Persian schools

The Persian schools taught the Persian language; grammar; letter-writing; and literary texts, such as *Pandnameh*, *Gulistan*, *Bostan*, *Joseph* and *Zuleikha*, *Asafi*, *Sekandar Nameh* (life of Alexander), *Bahar-i-Danish*, and *Allami*, consisting of correspondences between Akbar and Abul Fazl. The Persian teachers had regular monthly salaries and received a fee from students. Their income from both salary and fee ranged from 6 to 8 rupees per

month. Some of the Persian Schools had buildings, but many of them were conducted in 'out-houses, *baithak-khanas*, *chandi mandaps* and *katcheris*.' The majority of Persian teachers were Muslims, while a large number of students were Hindus. There were 2,141 Hindu and 1,417 Muslim students in Bengal and Bihar. Adam stated that 'those Musalmans and Hindus who have received a Persian education have nearly the same command of Persian as a written language that educated Englishmen have of their mother tongue.' After they left the schools 'they continue to read the Persian works and use it for private correspondence with friends.'¹²⁰

South Bihar and Tirhoot had 279 and 234 Persian schools respectively. All Persian teachers were Muslims with the exception of a Kayastha teacher in each district. The South Bihar Persian schools had 1,424 students; of them 865 were Hindus, and 559 were Muslims.¹²¹ The NWP had 1,257 Persian schools with 8,503 boys. The majority of teachers were Muslims and Kayasthas, while there were also a small number of Persian teachers from Brahmin, Rajput, Banias, and artisanal castes.¹²²

Arabic and Persian schools in Bombay and Madras Presidencies

The number of Arabic and Persian schools was small in the Bombay and the Madras Presidencies. The Muslims formed 3 per cent of the total population

Table 2.8 The caste of students in Persian schools in the Bengal Presidency

Districts	Murshidabad	Birbhum	Burdwan	South Bihar	Tirhut	Total
No. of Schools	17	71	93	279	234	694
Brahmin	27	111	153	11	30	332
Kayastha	15	83	172	711	349	1,330
Baidya	—	10	4	—	—	14
Kshatriya	4	1	46	44	33	128
Banik/Vysya	2	12	10	11	1	36
Artisanal	9	13	58	107	10	197
Castes, Kurmi, Napit, Mali, Sutar, etc.						
Vaishnava	—	2	—	57	20	79
Untouchable	4	13	5	3	—	25
Castes — Sunri Kaibarta						
Total Hindu	61	245	448	944	443	2,141
Muslim	41	240	451	559	126	1,417
Total	102	485	899	1,503	569	3,558

Source: Compiled from the information given in *Adam's Report*, pp. 277–290.

in the Bombay Presidency (prior to the annexation of Sindh in 1843); while they represented only 5 per cent of the total population in Madras Presidency.¹²³ Most of the Muslims spoke Gujarati, Marathi, Konkani, Kannada, Telugu, Tamil, and Malayalam languages, used Arabic for reading the Koran, and most of them were not familiar with Persian. The use of Persian was confined to the court of the Nawab of Arcot.

In Surat District, there were 20 Arabic schools with 471 boys, where they were taught to recite the Koran. In Surat town, the Bohra Muslim community maintained a large Arabic Madrassa with 125 boys at an annual cost of 32,000 rupees. The teachers received from students on average 8 rupees, 14 anna, and 1 pice per month. A few poor students studied without paying anything to the teacher.¹²⁴ T.B. Jervis reported that 'in Arabic schools, the teacher taught every child as in English schools and in large schools, the more advanced boys assisted the teacher.'¹²⁵ However, he does not say how many were there in South Konkan district. In Dharwar, there were five schools where Persian and Hindustani were taught.¹²⁶ Chaplin reported that 19 Arabic and Persian schools taught 65 Mussalman boys in Khandesh.¹²⁷

The Madras Presidency, too, exhibited a similar trend. North Arcot, which was under the rule of the Nawabs, had 40 Persian schools with 374 boys and nine girls.¹²⁸ In Masulipattanam the 19 Persian schools had 236 Muslim boys and two Muslim girls.¹²⁹ Coimbatore district also had 10 Persian schools with 312 boys in it.¹³⁰ The collector of Salem reported that 'the yearly charge to the Hindu students is not less than three rupees a year while for the Musselman students the charge amounted to fifteen to twenty rupees.'¹³¹ So the cost of acquiring Persian and Arabic education was also one of the probable causes that prevented parents from aspiring to it. In Bombay and Madras Presidencies, the languages of the court and administration were Gujarati, Marathi, Kannada, Telugu, and Tamil. So Muslims sent their boys to the local vernacular schools along with Hindu, Parsi, and Christian boys and used Arabic for religious purposes. The knowledge of Arabic, the Koran, and Islamic law were taught by local priests to a few Muslim boys in the local Madrassa.

Recommendations

William Adam recommended that the indigenous schoolmasters should receive financial support from the government to 'raise their economic position' as 'better remuneration would attract better talent.' He drew the attention of the government to the poverty of masters and concluded that the government alone can act in this matter and urged the government to extensively establish vernacular schools across Bengal Presidency.¹³²

In spite of the overwhelming presence of non-Brahmin teachers and students in the indigenous vernacular schools across India, a number of

government officials recommended the appointment of Brahmins alone as teachers and urged the government to encourage the Brahmins, Rajputs, and landed gentry to take up education. Jervis argued that 'the curriculum taught in vernacular schools is altogether useless to nine-tenths of children' and recommended limiting education to Brahmins alone 'for the security of our own government . . . we need some more powerful and innate restraint than the force of arms.'¹³³ Judge of Ahmedabad, who compiled the data insisted that only Brahmins should be appointed as teachers because

a scholar is required highly to venerate his instructor and on several occasions to prostrate himself before him, and it would therefore be very inconsistent for the son of a Brahmin to do this, to any person of an inferior caste.¹³⁴

In the vernacular schools, the students did not prostrate before their teachers. It was practised occasionally in Sanskrit schools. The British officers recommended the practice of the Sanskrit schools into vernacular to deny the non-Brahmins teaching position. This is confirmed by the example provided by them.

The Hindoo religion attaches so much importance between a young Brahmin and his guru or spiritual teacher, the person from whom he learns to read and explain the Vedas and Shastras; a connection, the sole object of which is to qualify him for the priestly function, and for that of an expounder of the law.¹³⁵

Many other officials too eulogised the Brahmin teachers or gurus. Denying teaching position to non-Brahmins was a well thought out strategy of the British officers. William Adam, Thomas Munro, and other Scottish officers did not recommend it, in fact, they opposed it.

Indigenous schools during the British rule

The indigenous schools did not disappear during the British rule; on the contrary, the British government followed a policy of incorporation. The colonial state appreciated the 'uniformity of character of the indigenous schools in spite of linguistic and religious diversities' and declared it as 'the foundation of national education.'¹³⁶ The economic criterion was the chief factor for incorporating the indigenous schools. T.B. Macaulay had fixed the salaries of Indian teachers between 30 and 50 rupees a month.¹³⁷ The colonial state was unwilling to pay this amount, which was in addition to the cost of establishing new schools. So the government gave a month's training to the existing indigenous teachers to teach geography, explain maps, maintain attendance registers, and submit annual reports for a monthly salary of

five rupees. In this way, it created thousands of government primary schools without any major investment. Until the 1860s the government vernacular primary schools across India, except in Bombay and Punjab provinces, were merely indigenous schools with an attendance register and a small government salary for the teacher.¹³⁸ The government classified indigenous schools into four categories: the 'Stipendiary Pathshalas,' where the teacher got 5 rupees a month; 'Rewarded Pathshalas,' in which the educational inspector examined the students once a year and rewarded the teachers depending upon examination results; 'Registered Pathshalas,' where the indigenous teacher just submitted annual returns for 1 rupee; and 'indigenous Pathshalas,' which 'stood aloof from any interaction with the government.'¹³⁹ In the five districts of the NWP for which the data is available, there were 1,389 indigenous schools with 18,299 boys on the eve of the Indian Revolt of 1857, and of them 760 schools were destroyed (see Table 2.9).

Many teachers of Stipendiary Pathshalas whose monthly salary had risen to 10 rupees got a government pension.¹⁴⁰ By 1882, out of 84,740 government primary schools, almost 70,000 schools were indigenous schools adopted by the colonial state.¹⁴¹ While incorporating the indigenous schools, the British privileged Brahmin teachers over others; as a result, by the end of the nineteenth century, most of the schoolteachers came to be Brahmins.

The policy of incorporation was also motivated by the fact that the colonial state had to furnish annual returns to the Court of Directors as well as to the British Parliament at the time of the renewal of the charter of the East India Company (EIC). For as little as 1 rupee per school, the colonial state could get statistics for thousands of schools and pass them off as government schools. In Bengal and North India, government-supported indigenous schools were called by various names, such as Halkabandi (Circle), Government Vernacular Schools, Lower Primary Schools, and Government Pathshalas, and these survived well into the twentieth century. Thousands of indigenous schools also continued in their original form without any connection with the government. The modernisation of administration, which

Table 2.9 Number of indigenous schools before and after the Indian Revolt of 1857

<i>Districts</i>	<i>1856/57 Schools</i>	<i>1856/57 Boys</i>	<i>1857/58 Schools</i>	<i>1857/58 Boys</i>
Agra	430	7,980	150	1,976
Etawah	80	988	16	153
Farrukhabad	429	4,071	187	1,479
Mathura	260	2,780	160	1,648
Mainpuri	190	2,480	116	1,077
Total	1,389	18,299	629	6,333

Source: Report on the Popular Education in the NWP for 1856–57, 57–58, p. 27.

required literacy on the part of the people, and the government's unwillingness to invest in education made these schools popular in the rural areas. The Indian Education Commission during 1881–1882 interviewed many indigenous schoolmasters.¹⁴²

In Bombay, Mountstuart Elphinstone insisted that Brahmins alone should be appointed as teachers, and since the majority of teachers in the indigenous schools were non-Brahmins, he established a series of new government primary schools with Brahmin teachers to teach the indigenous curriculum. Still, the number of indigenous schools in their original form went up in Bombay from 1,716 in 1847 to 3,330 in 1875.¹⁴³ There was Association of Indigenous School Masters, which held a conference and submitted a memorial to the Indian Education Commission.¹⁴⁴ In Punjab, since the government changed the medium of instruction from Persian and Punjabi to Urdu, it had to establish new schools, as none of the indigenous schoolmasters knew Urdu. In Bengal, North India, and Central Provinces, though, many Indians opted for modern education, yet thousands of boys went to purely indigenous schools in 1881, as can be seen in Table 2.10.

During 1845–1881, the Bengal government adopted 48,834 indigenous schools. Still, there were 3,265 indigenous schools with 49,238 boys in the original form. In the Central Provinces, of the 1,344 indigenous schools, 1,261 had been made into government vernacular schools, while only 83 remained purely indigenous. In Assam, 1,351 schools received government support, while only 497 remained purely indigenous. The Commission gave a list of twelve recommendations regarding, recognising, and registering the indigenous schools and imparting training to its masters.¹⁴⁵

Critical analysis of thousands of indigenous schools upturn the popular theories that the indigenous education was oral, informal, and Brahmin

Table 2.10 The number of indigenous schools and students in 1881–1882

<i>Provinces</i>	<i>No. of Indigenous Schools</i>	<i>No. of Students</i>	<i>Avg.No. of Students per School</i>
Madras	2,828	54,064	19.11
Bombay	3,924	79,000	20.13
Bengal	3,265	49,238	20.13
NWP and Awadh	6,712	61,634	9.18
Punjab	6,362	86,023	13.52
Central Provinces	83	3,148	37.92
Assam	497	9,233	18.57
Coorg	41	470	2.27
Hyderabad Assigned Districts	207	2,672	12.90
Total	17,557	345,482	19.67

Source: The Report of the Indian Education Commission, 67–69.

dominated as well as the argument that the British destroyed the indigenous schools. In India, dissenting Vaishnavism was widespread. This tradition, along with heterodox Jaina, Veerasaiva, and Sikh traditions, used vernacular for communicating religious knowledge. For instance, for a Vaishnava Brahmin boy residing in Kannada-speaking areas, the ability to read, recite, and explain *Hari Kathamrita Sara* – the Kannada version of the Bhagavata text by Jagannatha Dasa, an eighteenth-century saint – was the ultimate acquisition of religious knowledge and the road to popularity in the region. Similarly, for a Veerasaiva boy, it was the *Basaveshwara Purana* and the *vachanas* of Veerasaiva saints. In Bengal, it was *Chaitanya Charitamruta*, in Maharashtra the *Dyaneshwari*, and Marathi hymns by Tukaram; in Gujarat it was Narasinh Mehta's compositions, and so on.¹⁴⁶ Sanskrit contained philosophy and ritual knowledge handed down by generations, but vernacular was the medium through which its essence was communicated to the society at large. W.W. Hunter aptly observed that the indigenous schools prepared the boys 'for services of their religion or for future civil positions.'¹⁴⁷

Notes

- 1 Basu, ed., and Adam, *Reports on the State of Education in Bengal 1835 and 1838*, 228, hence forth *Adam's Report*.
- 2 *Appendix to the Report from the Select Committee of the House of Commons on the Affairs of the East India Company 1832*, 341, henceforth *Appendix to Report 1832*.
- 3 The rituals of *upanayana* ceremony were different in different castes, however, the ritual of *aksharabhyasa* or initiation into writing was common to all castes. There was no such ceremony for girls; with very few exceptions, girls were completely denied of education.
- 4 *Madras Public Consultations*, 21 August 1835, Nos. 104–105, Alexander Johnston to Charles Grant 23 July 1833 (Charles Grant (1778–1866), born in Bengal, was the eldest son of Charles Grant and the member of the House of Commons who along with T.B. Macaulay was involved with the drafting the Charter Act of 1833, and composed the equality clause which gave equal employment opportunities to Indians).
- 5 General Department 63 of 1824, T.B. Jervis to the Secretary to the government 8 September 1824.
- 6 *Ibid*.
- 7 Parulekar, *Survey of Indigenous Education*, xxi.
- 8 See the entire debate in chapter 5.
- 9 General Department 92 of 1825, Evantr Baillie, Judge North Concan to James Farish, 13 November 1824.
- 10 *Ibid*, W.M. Chaplin to Secretary to the government James Farish, 21 September 1825.
- 11 Education Department, Vol. I, Henry Pottinger to government, 18 August 1824. (The non-Brahmin group consisted of 64 Kunbis, 14 Sonars, 13 Weavers, 13 Telis, 5 coppersmiths 13, Purdesis, 19 Kasars, 9 carpenters, 13 dyers, 4 indigo dyers, 10 Goozurs, 7 Zingurs, 8 Kanrah wanes, 9 Simpics).

- 12 General Department, 63 of 1824. Henderson, Judge Surat to James Ferish, 30 September 1824.
- 13 General Department, 92 of 1825, Collector of Broach to James Farish, 17 July 1824.
- 14 Education Department Vol. I, *Henry Pottinger's Report*, 1825.
- 15 General Department No. 92 of 1825, Arthur Crawford to James Farish 20 September 1824.
- 16 Education Department, Vol I, Thomas Harvey Baber to William Chaplin, 22 August 1824.
- 17 Parulekar, *Survey of Indigenous Education*, 195.
- 18 Ibid.
- 19 General Department, Vol. 92 of 1825, J.D. DeVitre, to James Ferish, 27 September 1825.
- 20 Court of Directors to Bombay, 16 April 1828, Appendix to Report 1832, 388.
- 21 Minute by Thomas Munro 25 June 1822, Board of Revenue, 8 July 1822, No 918. Also see *Appendix to Report 1832*, 349–350. Potal/Patil was village headman.
- 22 T. Fraser, to BR, 23 June 1823, No. 26.
- 23 There is a variation in the statistics given by the district collectors and the final numbers sent by the Board of Revenue to the government. This table is based on this letter.
- 24 J. Vaughan to BR, 5 August 1823, Nos. 52–53.
- 25 Harris to government, 27 August 1822, BRP, Nos. 35–36.
- 26 Harris to BR, 3 February 1825, No 45. Harris established a school for the nephews of the rich Bunt families as they and not sons inherited property in matrilineal Bunt families. This must have created suspicion as no family came forward to send their boys.
- 27 J.B. Hudelston to BR, 3 February 1823, No. 21.
- 28 E. Smalley to BR, 3 April 1823, No. 25.
- 29 M.D. Cockburn to BR, 8 July 1823, No 50.
- 30 Minute by A. D. Campbell 17 August 1823, BR, Nos. 32–33.
- 31 Ibid.
- 32 Ibid.
- 33 Ibid.
- 34 *Adam's Report*, 1.
- 35 Ibid, 6.
- 36 Ibid, 16.
- 37 Ibid, 2.
- 38 Ibid, 211–222.
- 39 Ibid.
- 40 Ibid, 50–51.
- 41 Ibid, 137–138.
- 42 Ibid, 228.
- 43 Ibid, 246–247.
- 44 Ibid, 54.
- 45 Reid, *Report on Indigenous Education in the NWP 1851*, 12–19. On page 58, Reid has given different figures – 1121 Hindi schools with 10,160 boys.
- 46 Ibid, 82.
- 47 Ibid, 26.
- 48 Arnold's First Report in Richey, *Selections from Educational Records 1840–1859*, 288–299.
- 49 Ibid, 290.

- 50 Education Department Vol. I, *Henry Pottinger's Report*, 1825.
- 51 *Adam's Report*, 250.
- 52 Basak, *History of Vernacular Education in Bengal 1800–1854*, 45.
- 53 Parulekar, *Indigenous Education*, xxiv.
- 54 *Report by the Punjab Provincial Committee*, 3.
- 55 General Department, 92 of 1825.
- 56 J. Vaughan to BR, 5 August 1823, Nos. 52–53.
- 57 Public Proceedings, Bombay, 26 January 1825, Nos. 21–44.
- 58 Board Collections, No. 26361, Collector of Broach to Bombay Government 17 July 1824.
- 59 Reid, *Report on Indigenous Education in the NWP 1851*, 12–19.
- 60 Arnold's First Report in Richey, *Selections from Educational Records*, 288–299.
- 61 H. Vibrat, to BR, 29 October 1822, Nos. 33–34.
- 62 J. Sullivan, to BR, 23 November 1822, No 43.
- 63 J. Smith, BR, 14 April 1823, Nos. 6–7.
- 64 F.W. Robertson, to BR, 19 September 1823, Nos. 29–30.
- 65 E. Smalley to BR, 3 April 1823, BRP, No. 25.
- 66 C. Hyde to BR, 29 June 1823, BRP, No. 59–60.
- 67 J.F. Lane to BR, 3 January 1823, Nos. 15–16.
- 68 Appendix to Report 1832, 358–360, Minute by Thomas Munro 10 March 1826.
- 69 J. Thomas Phillips, (tr. from Dutch) *Thirty Four Conferences Between Danish Missionaries and the Malabar Brahmins in the East Indies* (the title is misleading; the thirty four meetings were between Ziegenbalg and Hindu, Muslim priests, indigenous school students, and many others).
- 70 Reid, *Report on Indigenous Education in the NWP 1851*, 98–99.
- 71 *Adam's Report*, 8.
- 72 *Adam's Report*, 242–245.
- 73 Reid, *Indigenous Education 1851*, 66–67.
- 74 *Ibid*, 245, 248.
- 75 *Ibid*, 233, 253.
- 76 Parulekar, *Indigenous Education*, xxxi.
- 77 *Ibid*, xxviii.
- 78 General Department 1824, No. 63, T.B. Jervis to the Secretary to the government 8 September 1824.
- 79 Parulekar, *Indigenous Education*, xxix.
- 80 Day, *Recollections of Alexander Duff*, 129.
- 81 A.D. Campbell to BR, 17 August 1823, Nos. 32–33.
- 82 Reid, *Indigenous Education*, 34.
- 83 J. Sullivan to BR, 23 November 1822, No. 43.
- 84 Reid, *Report on Indigenous Education*, 12–19, 35–36. These were 'two ashtami, two parva, two chaturdashi, the amavasya and purnami.'
- 85 F.W. Robertson to BR, 19 September 1823, Nos. 29–30.
- 86 J.C. Whish to BR 9 July 1823, No. 49.
- 87 *Adam's Report*, 230, 244.
- 88 Parulekar, *Indigenous Education*, xxxviii.
- 89 *Appendix to the Report 1832*, 205.
- 90 *Ibid*, 78.
- 91 *Adam's Report*, 173–175.
- 92 *Ibid*, 166–168.
- 93 *Ibid*, 169–170.
- 94 *Ibid*, 169–172. The two Baidyas were brothers and together conducted a school.

- 95 Ibid, 254–258.
- 96 Ibid, 258–261. One school had father and son teaching together and another had an uncle and nephew.
- 97 Ibid, 261–267.
- 98 Ibid, 267–272.
- 99 General Department 63 of 1824, Henderson to the government 30 September 1824.
- 100 Education Department Vol. I, 1825, T.H. Baber to William Chaplin, 22 August 1825.
- 101 General Department 92 of 1825, William Chaplin to James Farish, 21 September 1825.
- 102 William Cooke to BR, 3 March 1823, Nos. 20–21.
- 103 E. Smalley to BR, 3 April 1823, No. 25.
- 104 J. Sullivan to BR, 23 November 1822, No. 43.
- 105 R. Peter to BR, 5 February 1823, No. 21.
- 106 J. Cotton to BR, 28 June 1823, No. 61.
- 107 G.W. Saunders to BR, 23 August 1823, Nos. 35–36.
- 108 M.D. Cockburn to BR, 8 July 1823, No. 50.
- 109 J.F. Lane to BR, 3 January 1823, Nos. 15–16.
- 110 F.W. Robertson to BR, 19 September 1823, Nos. 29–30.
- 111 J.C. Whish to BR, 9 July 1823, No. 49.
- 112 P.R. Cazalet, to BR, 27 October 1823, Nos. 5–6.
- 113 Petition by Narayana Tune undated attached to letter from Vaughan to BR, 14 August 1823, Nos. 52–53.
- 114 J. Vaughan to BR, 5 August 1823, Nos. 52–53.
- 115 Reid, *Report on Indigenous Education*, 12, 62.
- 116 Guha, 'Some Aspects of Agricultural Growth,' 83–84.
- 117 *Adam's Report*, 273–277.
- 118 Ibid, 282–283.
- 119 Reid, *Report on Indigenous Education*, 12, 44.
- 120 *Adam's Report*, 277–291.
- 121 Ibid, 57–89, 277–290.
- 122 Reid, *Report on Indigenous Education*, 12.
- 123 *Appendix to Report 1832*, 227.
- 124 General Department, 63 of 1824, Henderson to the government, 30 September 1824.
- 125 Ibid, T.B. Jervis to the government 8 September 1824.
- 126 Education Department, Vol. I, 1825, T.H. Baber to William Chaplin, 22 August 1825.
- 127 General Department, 92 of 1825, William Chaplin to Sec James Farish, 21 September 1825.
- 128 William Cooke to BR, 3 March 1823, No. 16.
- 129 J.F. Lane to BR, 3 January 1823, No. 9.
- 130 J. Sullivan to BR, 23 November 1822, No. 43.
- 131 M.D. Cockburn to BR, 8 July 1823, No. 50.
- 132 *Adam's Report*, 312.
- 133 General Department, No. 63 of 1824.
- 134 Ibid, No. 1 of 1825, W. A. Jones, to David Greenhill, 17 February 1825.
- 135 *Appendix to Report 1832*, Public letter from Madras 16 April 1828, 360–363. In the margin it is mentioned as the 'Minute of Sir Thomas Munro 16 April 1828.' This is inaccurate. Munro died on 6 July 1827 and the letter in paragraph 5 refers to him in third person. So, whether the governor Lushington

- was trying to pass off his obscurantist educational ideas as that of Thomas Munro, or it was a genuine clerical error, is hard to tell.
- 136 *The Report of the Indian Education Commission*, 56.
- 137 GCPIC, Vol. 4, Minute by Macaulay dated 25 March 1835, and 2 December 1835.
- 138 GCPIC, Vol. 65, December 1841, Report on Pathshalas in Lower Provinces.
- 139 Bengal Annual Report on Education, 1877–78, 4. Classification of Instruction.
- 140 Education Proceedings, July 1870, 17–18, Pension rules.
- 141 Compiled from the data submitted by the provincial committees of Bengal, Madras, Bombay Presidencies, North-western Provinces, Punjab, and Central Provinces to the Indian Education Commission 1882.
- 142 *The Report of the Indian Education Commission*, 5.
- 143 Ibid, 67.
- 144 Ibid, 634.
- 145 Ibid, 78–79.
- 146 The Vaishnavism rejected social and economic hierarchies. It held Vishnu as the supreme god and all human beings as merely servants – *dasas* of Vishnu. The British Orientalists who inherently believed and upheld social and economic hierarchies overtly promoted Sanskrit, *Dharmasastras*, and Banaras as authentic representatives of Hinduism. The protestant missionaries opposed idol worship associated with vaishnavism. The colonial state supported big land owners, who belonged to the *saiva* tradition. The combined effect was such that by the beginning of 20th century, Sanskrit, Banaras, and Advaita became almost the only authentic representatives of Hinduism, and in places like Bengal, Chaitanya and Vaishnavism completely disappeared.
- 147 *The Report of the Indian Education Commission*, 57.